
5. Cultural tastes and everyday networks

Omar Lizardo

INTRODUCTION

This chapter reviews work on how networks and cultural tastes shape one another. This is an area of work at the intersection of the sociology of taste (Bourdieu, 1984 [1979]; Peterson & Kern, 1996) and social network analysis, particularly the analysis of personal (or “ego”) networks (see Crossley et al., 2015) and the study of social capital, conceived as resources embedded in network ties (Bourdieu, 1986; Lin, 1999). This intersection has seen a consistent stream of empirical and theoretical work in sociology during the past two and a half decades.

Two broad approaches to theory and research dominate this field. On the one hand, some analysts construe networks as the pre-existing “infrastructure” and tastes as the contents that flow through them. From this perspective, network ties and their overall structure and properties (e.g., homophily, tie strength) are the primary causal drivers. The basic idea is that if we know who someone is tied to, we can make pretty accurate guesses as to what they would like, or at least the broad patterns of tastes the person will hold (Erickson, 1996; Mark, 1998).

Other analysts see networks as less infrastructural and more fleeting, built via conversations and interactions (DiMaggio, 1987; Lizardo, 2006b), while viewing cultural tastes as relatively more durable and habitualized (Bourdieu, 1984 [1979]). From this perspective, people use pre-existing tastes as a resource to *construct* novel social relationships or perhaps shed culturally incompatible ties (Vaisey & Lizardo, 2010). The basic idea is that if we know what someone likes and dislikes, we can make accurate guesses regarding with whom they are more likely to connect or keep a lasting relationship.

These two approaches are not mutually exclusive. Likely, the mechanisms emphasized in each perspective are at play in the real world. People are influenced to adopt new tastes from the people with whom they are connected and use pre-existing ties to establish or delete certain social connections (Crossley, 2020, p. 89). However, when analysts tackle specific research questions and topics, they tend to emphasize either networks or tastes as the primary causal drivers. For some, networks are the ultimate independent variable (and cultural tastes are an outcome), while for others, it is the other way around. Accordingly, this division represents a helpful way to navigate through literature.

In what follows, I focus on general accounts of the relationships between cultural tastes and what Crossley (2020, p. 101ff.) calls “everyday networks.” Naturally, shared cultural tastes play a role in structuring access to and ties within specialized cultural production (e.g., art-worlds and “musicworlds”) and professional work communities (Crossley, 2008; Koppman, 2016; Rivera, 2012). Conversely, cultural tastes are shaped and structured via membership in such settings; however, work on specialized professional and cultural networks will remain outside the scope of the present chapter.

NETWORKS AS THE SHAPER OF TASTES

Cultural Niches and Social Space

The work of Noah Mark (2003) stands out for providing the first rigorous conceptualization (and empirical evidence) of how social networks can help organize cultural tastes at a societal scale (see also Mark 1998 for an earlier statement).

Mark departs from the observation that cultural preferences are segregated into distinct “niches” of socio-demographic space. Here, Mark draws on McPherson’s (2004) socio-demographic niche theory, which builds on earlier insights from Blau’s (1977) macro-structural theory, conceptualizing social space as a *multidimensional* space. People’s position in this “Blau space,” whose axes are composed of “dimensions of association,” continuous, ordinal, and nominal (such as age, gender, race, occupational prestige, and the like), shapes the chances people will form network connections. The basic principle here is that of *homophily* (McPherson et al., 2001), namely, the idea that the probability of two being tied in a social network is a function of the number of socio-demographic characteristics they share (Centola, 2011). Homophily, in turn, translates to a distance gradient in Blau space; people close to one another in Blau space are more likely to be connected, while those far apart are less so.

In Mark’s model, connectivity is a conduit through which cultural tastes, opinions, and beliefs are transmitted via imitation and social influence (Childress & Friedkin, 2012; Rimmer, 2010, p. 262). Acquiring cultural preferences is best envisioned as a “local bandwagon” process of network-based imitation and influence among people clustered in proximal regions in Blau space. These mechanisms are mutually amplifying because people are more likely to be influenced by or use as role models to imitate similar others (Centola, 2011).

By definition, the distribution of network ties in Blau space is “lumpy,” with people concentrated along areas that maximize similarity; therefore, so will the distribution of tastes, which will be non-randomly concentrated within particular “niches” of Blau space. A niche, in turn, can be considered a delimited “volume” in the Blau space containing people sharing a specific vector of socio-demographic characteristics functioning as dimensions of association. For instance, in the contemporary United States (U.S.), classical music will be more likely to be found in the Blau space niche marked by relatively high education, occupational prestige, older age, and white or Asian ethnoracial identity (Lizardo & Skiles, 2015).

Mark uses a formal model adapted from Carley (1991) to show how this concentration of tastes along socio-demographic lines can be realized via routine interaction and network-based transmission via social ties “biased” by homophily. Thus, Mark can explain why tastes and opinions cluster in specific “cultural niches,” and why at any one moment we are liable to find systematic correlations between social position and cultural tastes (Bourdieu, 1984 [1979]). Recent work by DellaPosta et al. (2015) uses an approach similar to Mark’s to explain the association between cultural tastes and practices and presumably (e.g., logically) unrelated attitudes and beliefs such as political liberalism and conservatism. In the authors’ whimsical example: Why is it that (in the U.S.) “liberals drink lattes?”

The basic idea is that once relatively small correlations between politics and lifestyle start to obtain—even if for contingent reasons—and *political ideology* becomes a fundamental dimension of association in Blau’s sense (Boutyline & Willer, 2017), arbitrary linkages between politics, tastes, and lifestyle practices can be amplified via the twin mechanisms of

homophily and personal influence mentioned earlier. Accordingly, local bandwagon processes segregate conservatives and liberals into distinct niches containing distinct tastes and cultural preferences (for music, movies, literature, and—yes—caffeinated beverages), solidifying boundaries by the standard mechanisms of relational segregation and selective interaction. These boundaries, in turn, reify “associations” between ideology and cultural practices that did not exist before.

Subsequent work by DellaPosta (2020) shows that correlations between political ideology and many other cultural tastes, practices, and beliefs are spreading in an “oil spill” fashion, indicating further structuring of social political and other preferences by social networks in the U.S. case.

NETWORK VARIETY AND CULTURAL VARIETY

Another foundational work in the tradition looking at networks as the drives of cultural tastes is that of Erickson (1996). According to Erickson, the more diverse the network connections of a given individual, the more varied their preferences and cultural consumption habits will be. That is, *network variety leads to cultural variety*.

Erickson’s work thus links network analysis to the large and sprawling literature on “cultural omnivorousness” in the sociology of taste (Hazır & Warde, 2015; Peterson & Kern, 1996), proposing a “network” explanation for this well-documented phenomenon. Omnivores (people who like many things) are also “well connected.” If we know someone is an omnivore, we can surmise they also have extensive personal networks composed of contacts with a wide distribution of socio-demographic characteristics (Warde & Tampubolon, 2002).

Like Mark, the primary mechanism behind Erickson’s proposal is *exposure*, since individuals who connect to a wide range of positions in the social structure will be exposed to a broader range of tastes and cultural pursuits typical of people in those positions, thus acquiring a working familiarity with those cultural styles. Using data from a sample of respondents from the Toronto contract security industry, Erickson shows that of the standard class and status indicators (both individual and in terms of family of origin), knowing people in more diverse class positions is the best predictor of being familiar with a broader range of cultural pursuits.

Erickson’s work has been expanded and developed in subsequent work. In a follow-up study, Kane (2004) examines how differences in the structure of social capital can help explain well-established gender differences in cultural participation. Using data from a student sample at an elite university, she finds that respondents with more “dense” personal networks (meaning they have friends who are also likely to be friends with one another) are less likely to participate in cultural activities, except those (like sports) linked to solidarity-producing “interaction rituals” (see Collins, 2004). More importantly, Kane finds that more socio-demographically heterogeneous ego networks increase the chances of individuals consuming high-status genres, providing evidence of a link between network structure and the accumulation of cultural capital as “high-status signals” (see Lamont & Lareau, 1988). Importantly, network effects are most substantial for women, providing a social capital explanation of their often-observed cultural capital advantage over men (Lizardo, 2006a).

In subsequent work inspired by Erickson, Cebula (2015, 2019) uses data from a sample of respondents in the Polish city of Wrocław to examine how networks shape cultural tastes. Cebula’s studies are distinctive in a couple of ways. First, Cebula (2015) used

a resource-generator approach for measuring personal network connectivity—a variation of the “position generator” strategy (Lin et al., 2001). Instead of asking whether they know someone with a given occupational status, respondents are asked if they know somebody they can ask to help them with various requests, problems, or services. Cebula (2015) finds that a greater range of network-embedded resources helps predict whether the person engages in a broader range of cultural activities, such as attending museums, galleries, or musical performances.

Extending the analysis to the study of musical taste in the same setting, Cebula (2019) finds that the more socio-demographically heterogeneous a person’s ego network is, the more likely they report liking a wider variety of musical genres. Like Erickson’s, Cebula’s work establishes an empirical link between heterogeneity at the level of social capital and the capacity to cross symbolic boundaries associated with cultural taste. In the same way, Cebula shows that the greater the weak-tie acquaintance volume, the more likely it is that a person displays an omnivorous pattern of taste.

More recent work builds on Erickson to examine how different personal network connectivity patterns help predict patterns of cultural choice. This work seeks to differentiate *subtypes* of network connectivity and cultural taste while investigating their linkages (see Alecu et al., 2022 for a related approach). For instance, Childress and collaborators (2021) disaggregate cultural preferences into high-status forms of taste that combine omnivorous inclusiveness at the level of genres with discernment and exclusiveness at the level of specific cultural objects (e.g., artists or songs in the case of music) falling *within* genres. To measure network connectivity, they use a position generator approach that distinguishes between strong and weak ties to others, in particular occupational groups in the personal network.

Childress et al. (2021) hypothesize that consistent with Erickson’s diversity principle, people whose personal network profile consists of *weak ties* to others in *diverse positions* will have a wider variety of tastes at the genre level. They also propose a network basis for exclusionary preferences at the object level (e.g., disliking a wider range of specific artists and songs). They reason that people with *strong ties* to others in *high-status* positions should be more likely to display this cultural capital profile. Using data from a Qualtrics panel of American respondents, Childress et al. find that, indeed, the more weak ties one has to people in a wide range of occupations, the more inclusive tastes are at the genre level, providing support for Erickson’s thesis. However, the more strong ties one has to people in high-status occupations, the more restricted the range of objects liked within each genre. Childress et al. thus show that there is a network basis for “Petersonian omnivorousness” at the genre level and “Bourdiesian distancing” at the level of specific exemplars.

TASTES AS THE SHAPER OF NETWORKS

The work reviewed so far shows that network mechanisms, at both the “macro” and “personal” levels, help explain various well-established phenomena in the sociology of taste, including the link between cultural taste and social position, why socially similar people like similar things (and dislike the same things), gender differences in cultural consumption, cultural omnivorism, high-status exclusion, and many others. Yet, this work only looks at half of the equation. Just like networks can shape tastes, tastes can also shape networks.

CULTURE CONVERSION

Lizardo's (2006b) work provides the first conceptual model and empirical evidence for how cultural tastes can lead to the biased formation of social network ties. Lizardo synthesized three strands in the literature that, at the time, had developed separately, despite each addressing critical processes and mechanisms linking culture and social networks. The first was—like Mark (2003)—Carley's (1991) constructural theory. The second consisted of micro-interactionist approaches to theorizing the functions of culture consumption in modern artistic classification systems linking cultural consumption to Simmelian sociability and the creation of bounded solidarities via the mobilization of cultural capital in "interaction rituals" (DiMaggio, 1987). The third was Bourdieu's (1986) imagery of the interconvertibility of the three forms of capital (social, economic, and cultural).

Lizardo thus proposed a "cultural conversion" pathway, whereby cultural tastes (e.g., "cultural capital") could be translated into network ties ("social capital" in Bourdieu's rendering). The basic idea is that cultural resources, particularly the possession of embodied abilities to consume certain forms of culture, should lead people to differentially cumulate and maintain social network ties, such that people with a wide variety of tastes should maintain more extensive social networks. Essentially, the same target phenomenon addressed by Erickson (1996) but with a reverse twist, standing in contrast to models postulating a one-directional arrow of causation (or conversion) going exclusively from network ties to cultural tastes.

Moreover, according to Lizardo, consumption of "asset-specific" cultural goods (e.g., requiring esoteric or difficult-to-acquire cultural knowledge) should have *restricted conversion value*, leading mainly to creating and maintaining networks of *strong* ties and local solidarities. On the other hand, consumption of cultural goods that are less asset-specific, such as popular culture with which most people are familiar, should have *generalized conversion value*, leading to the formation and maintenance of ego networks rich in weak ties. The "omnivorous" consumption of both types of culture should lead to more extensive networks containing weak and strong ties.

Using data from the culture and network modules of the U.S. General Social Survey, Lizardo found strong support for the general outlines of the cultural conversion model. The more cultural activities people consume, the more extensive their reported ego networks are. Highbrow culture—a type of asset-specific culture—increased the volume of strong ties, while consumption of popular culture increased the volume of weak ties. Omnivores who engage in both forms of culture can thus wield complementary resources, enjoying the advantages of bridging (with their weak ties) and bonding (with their strong ties).

WEAK AND STRONG CULTURE

Subsequent work has elaborated Lizardo's original work conceptually while providing partial empirical support for some of its key predictions. For example, Schultz and Breiger (2010) rework the original distinction between "asset-specific" and "non-asset-specific" culture to align with Granovetter's (1973) classic distinction between weak and strong ties. According to Schultz and Breiger, popular culture endowed with generalized conversion can best be considered *weak culture*.

Like weak ties in Granovetter's theory, weak culture is "strong" because it allows people to form network ties, however fleeting, with others in social-structural positions that otherwise would have no basis for connecting. In addition, they show, using U.S. General Social Survey data, that the more mild positive cultural preferences a people have (e.g., "likes" instead of "likes very much"), the more likely it is that they perceive the U.S. to be "united" (rather than divided). In short, weak culture leads to the perception of a potential for interaction across critical social divides, an unexpected implication of the culture-conversion imagery, with critical implications for contemporary issues like cultural and political polarization, as we saw earlier.

The idea of strong and weak culture has proved productive in understanding the link between cultural tastes and social networks. For instance, Lizardo (2011) extended Schultz and Breiger's consideration of the effects of weak culture to a classic outcome with implications for network theories of social capital: the extent to which people have ego networks rich in "structural holes," namely contacts whom themselves do not interact with one another (Burt, 2009 [1992]). Lizardo hypothesizes that just like weak culture affects the quality of ties, it should affect personal network structure, with the more weak preferences a person reports increasing the odds of having a network rich in structural holes. Using data from the network module of the 2004 General Social Survey network module and cultural preference data from people's website-browsing behavior—useful for differentiating between cultural preferences of different strengths—Lizardo finds support for the key hypothesis: the more weak cultural tastes a person has, the more likely they are to stand as a bridge between disconnected contacts in their ego network. Conversely, people who put all their "cultural eggs in a few baskets" by developing strong preferences for a few cultural forms are more likely to be embedded in "dense" networks where most of their contacts are mutually connected.

As Joseph and Carley (2015) note, Schultz and Breiger's (2010) concept of weak culture implies the existence of *strong culture* or "deep knowledge within particular domains ... [people] can use ... to form stronger bonds with like-minded individuals" (p. 626). Using data from over 1,800 Twitter (now X) users who reported well over 12 million cultural venue "check-ins" in the (now defunct) Foursquare app—allowing them to measure variety in culinary tastes by restaurant category and the strength of those tastes based on visit volume—Joseph and Carley find support for the central cultural conversion prediction: the more cultural preferences people have, the more extensive their Twitter ego network. They also find evidence of a "weak culture effect," with the range of weak cultural preferences increasing the overall number of weak ties people have. However, Joseph and Carley find no evidence of a strong culture effect, as the number of strong preferences people have fails to predict the number of strong ties.

CULTURAL MATCHING

Vaisey and Lizardo (2010) provide another crucial elaboration of the conversion idea, introducing the notion of *cultural matching* as a way to think about the effect of cultural tastes on social networks. According to Vaisey and Lizardo, cultural tastes, values, and preferences affect social networks mainly by serving as the underlying basis for *homophily* (thus reversing the causal arrow postulated by Mark, Centola, and other "network first" analysts). In this way, tastes can have an independent causal effect in shaping social networks because people use

the match between their tastes and others to *self-select* into particular social ties (Shalizi & Thomas, 2011).

Moreover, the degree of cultural match between two people determines whether certain social relationships stick over time or instead selectively die off, thus linking cultural matching at the dyadic level with processes of tie decay at the network level (Burt, 2000; Martin & Yeung, 2006). Using longitudinal data from the U.S. National Study of Youth and Religion, Vaisey and Lizardo find that, compared to those who express more communitarian cultural worldviews, adolescents abiding by individualist-expressivist cultural worldviews are more likely to maintain social ties with other adolescents who engage in substance use. In contrast, those with a more individualist-utilitarian worldview tend to keep social relations with those who volunteer.

Subsequent work provides strong empirical support for matching as a culture conversion mechanism. For instance, Friemel (2012) shows that shared cultural tastes promote tie formation among adolescents, with similar results using college-aged populations in the domain of musical taste reported by Lomi and Stadtfeld (2014), Vlegels (2014, p. 71ff.), and Hachen et al. (2022).

Edelmann and Vaisey (2014), using data from the Cambridge College Network Dataset, a longitudinal sample of graduate students in England, extend the CMM to consider not just substantive matches in terms of tastes and worldviews but also matching in terms of *abstentions* or dislikes. Just like people can match their avowed cultural preferences and practices, they can match according to what they do not or refuse to do; refusals are as crucial as choices (Bourdieu, 1984 [1979]). Consistent with the matching hypothesis, Edelmann and Vaisey (2014) find that mutual consumption of the same musical genres and common non-consumption systematically affect network ties, increasing the odds that two students will sustain a network connection over time.

The most sustained recent elaboration of the conversion and matching proposals—theoretically and empirically—is by Lewis and Kaufman (2018), who synthesize the conversion and matching ideas into a more general culture conversion model while also considering variations in the local cultural ecology to specify the notions of weak and strong culture. Lewis and Kaufman offer various conceptual advances over previous formulations of the link between culture and networks in which culture is seen as a causal driver of tie formation and resource for constructing network connections. First, they endogenize Schultz and Breiger's (2010) idea of weak and strong culture to what they refer to as the local “cultural ecology.” Rather than using exogenous criteria to determine what counts as weak or strong culture (e.g., broad labels such as highbrow or popular), they note that what can be considered weak or strong culture will depend on the local cultural environment's distribution of tastes and aptitudes. Second, they distinguish between different culture conversion and matching mechanisms and show how they can operate in tandem.

First, there is the *dyadic conversion* of tastes into network ties, whereby people exploit cultural commonalities specific to the focal dyad to form and sustain relationships (e.g., shared linking for particular genres and objects). Second, there is a *generalized conversion* process, whereby certain forms of taste and cultural consumption lead people to form more ties with others (increasing the acquaintance volume). Finally, there is *cultural matching*, where similarities in the entire cultural profile—including, following Edelmann and Vaisey, both active engagements and abstentions—increase the chances of people creating social connections with similar others.

Using stochastic actor-based models for longitudinal network data on a unique Facebook dataset—the “tastes, ties, and time” data collected during the platform’s early days in the U.S. (Lewis et al., 2008)—Lewis and Kaufmann find support for all three conversion mechanisms. Notably, the more tastes two students shared, the more likely they became Facebook friends, especially if those tastes were “specialized” to the local cultural ecology. In the same way, individuals who displayed typical tastes in the local cultural ecology were more likely to accumulate a larger volume of acquaintances via the generalized conversion mechanism.

CONVERSION AND NETWORK RESOURCES

As we saw earlier, both Cebula (2015) and Childress et al. (2021) show that we can use a person’s network heterogeneity (as given by resource and position generators) to predict patterns of cultural choice. But is the reverse also the case? Can patterns of cultural choice be converted into networks with access to different regions of the social space (e.g., in terms of connections to people in given social positions)?

Using data from the Netherlands’ Longitudinal Life Course Survey, Meuleman (2021) shows that the answer to this last question is yes. In the study, Meuleman hypothesizes that individuals specializing in high-status tastes will also display a high-status tilted personal network profile. This connection will depend on the ego’s social position, being stronger for individuals in high-status positions (cultural reproduction argument) or those who occupy low-status positions (cultural mobility argument), with the ego’s social position measured by their father’s occupational status.

Similarly, Meuleman hypothesizes that individuals with more popular tastes will display personal network profiles tilted towards resource diversity, as given by the heterogeneity of occupational prestige of the positions they can connect to. Finally, Meuleman reasons that a cultural capital profile tilted towards high-status genres will increase the heterogeneity of network resources for lower-status individuals. Meuleman measures the resources embedded in networks using a “name generator” (the educational status of top-five non-kin contacts) and a standard position generator with occupational status measured using the international socio-economic index. Meuleman finds that high-status cultural profiles lead to more high-status connections in the personal network and a higher likelihood of connectivity to people in higher-status positions.

Moreover, this effect is more substantial for individuals occupying lower-status positions, suggesting that high-status tastes are more important for this last group to forge connectivity to high-status others (a type of “cultural matching”). High-status cultural profiles serve as a bridge for lower-status egos to connect to higher-status positions. Meuleman does not find a statistically significant link between diversity in cultural tastes and the heterogeneity (standard deviation of educational attainment and International Socio-Economic Index) of network contacts net of network size. Meuleman also finds little evidence that high-status tastes increase the diversity of social positions to which lower-status people have access. Instead, Meuleman finds the opposite: a high-status-tilted cultural profile *decreases* the variety of positions accessed by lower-status people while *increasing* access to a diverse social network for high-status people.

DISCUSSION

This chapter has considered two general approaches to thinking about—and substantively researching—the connection between cultural tastes and (everyday) networks. In one line of work, networks are the causal drivers of individual and group differences in cultural tastes, and mechanisms operating via existing network ties, such as homophily-driven imitation or social influence, are the primary explanatory constructs. On the other stream, cultural aptitudes are the main causal drivers of tie formation, maintenance, and decay processes, and such phenomena as homophily-induced cultural similarities are outcomes rather than independent variables. From this perspective, tastes (and entire individual “profiles” of tastes) function as mechanisms enhancing (or decreasing) general connectivity, or assuring (or preventing) the formation of durable social ties to specific others via matching.

The goal here was not to portray the relationship between these two perspectives as warring or zero sum. Both sets of analysts draw on a common “constructural” imagery (see Carley, 1991) which presumes that influence, imitation, conversion, and matching are going on in producing large-scale patterns of linkage between cultural tastes, network ties, and markers of social position. The issue is more of a matter of emphasis and overall goals in different studies.

Beyond Comparative Statistics

However, as each line of research has matured, certain things have become clear. First, cross-sectional data containing information on social ties and cultural tastes on a set of individuals is of limited use in ascertaining which set of mechanisms is operating, even if that was the sort of data used in some of the foundational work in the field (Erickson, 1996; Lizardo, 2006b; Mark, 2003). Rarer longitudinal data containing time-varying information on both changing cultural tastes and patterns of connectivity are more advantageous in adjudicating whether influence or self-selection based on cultural similarity is the overriding process. Recent work that has had access to such data shows that both mechanisms operate, although in the case of musical tastes, self-selection via matching may be more preponderant than influence (Hachen et al., 2022; Lewis et al., 2012; Lomi & Stadtfeld, 2014). Nevertheless, a lot of the work on cultural matching and conversion processes that use longitudinal data and methods designed to tease apart selection and influence processes has been restricted to college populations.

A key question going forward, therefore, is not whether conversion or influence processes are happening, but which social settings facilitate one or the other. For instance, it could be that in more spatially circumscribed contexts bounded by local solidarities and high levels of homophily across overlapping characteristics—such as that studied by Rimmer (2010)—influence is more preponderant than in more open-ended university contexts, where individuals must suspend the use of socio-demographic markers as guides to relationship formation to focus on more fine-grained cultural similarities and differences.

Measuring Culture

Another issue going forward concerns the relative asymmetry in the state of measurement across the networks and culture divide. While social network analysis is one of the most mathematically formalized areas of contemporary social science—containing literally hundreds of measures of different aspects of social structure—the state of “cultural measurement” is in its

infancy by comparison (Mohr et al., 2020). This means that analysts sometimes have to rely on relatively crude typology to measure characteristics of cultural tastes (e.g., canned genre lists or binary classifications of tastes into broad categories such as “high/low status”). However, as recent work has shown, broad typologizing of cultural genres using exogenous labels is of limited value in understanding how they operate as cultural currency relevant for tie-formation processes in local “cultural ecologies” (Lewis & Kaufman, 2018). As such, a key priority going forward is to begin to formalize the measurement of cultural tastes so that they match the sophistication and generality of network measurement of social structure, thus helping us to understand their dynamic interconnection in more precise and fine-grained ways.

REFERENCES

- Alecu, A., Helland, H., Hjelbrekke, J., & Jarness, V. (2022). Who you know: The classed structure of social capital. *British Journal of Sociology*, 73(3), 505–535.
- Blau, P. M. (1977). A macrosociological theory of social structure. *American Journal of Sociology*, 83(1), 26–54.
- Bourdieu, P. (1984 [1979]). *Distinction: A Social Critique of the Judgement of Taste* (R. Nice, trans.). Harvard University Press.
- Bourdieu, P. (1986). The forms of capital. In J. Richardson (Ed.), *Handbook of Theory and Research for the Sociology of Education* (pp. 241–258). Greenwood Press.
- Boutyline, A., & Willer, R. (2017). The social structure of political echo chambers: Variation in ideological homophily in online networks. *Political Psychology*, 38(3), 551–569.
- Burt, R. S. (2000). Decay functions. *Social Networks*, 22(1), 1–28.
- Burt, R. S. (2009 [1992]). *Structural Holes: The Social Structure of Competition*. Harvard University Press.
- Carley, K. M. (1991). A theory of group stability. *American Sociological Review*, 56(3), 331–354.
- Cebula, M. (2015). Beyond economic and cultural capital: Network correlates of consumption tastes and practices. *Polish Sociological Review*, 192(4), 455–474.
- Cebula, M. (2019). Beyond social class and status: The network embeddedness of music consumption. *Przegląd Socjologiczny*, 68(2), 81–105.
- Centola, D. (2011). An experimental study of homophily in the adoption of health behavior. *Science*, 334(6060), 1269–1272.
- Childress, C. C., & Friedkin, N. E. (2012). Cultural reception and production: The social construction of meaning in book clubs. *American Sociological Review*, 77(1), 45–68.
- Childress, C. C., Baumann, S., Rawlings, C., & Nault, J.-F. (2021). Genres, objects, and the contemporary expression of higher-status tastes. *Sociological Science*, 8, 230–264.
- Collins, R. (2004). *Interaction Ritual Chains*. Princeton University Press.
- Crossley, N. (2008). Pretty connected: The social network of the early UK punk movement. *Theory, Culture & Society*, 25(6), 89–116.
- Crossley, N. (2020). *Connecting Sounds: The Social Life of Music*. Manchester University Press.
- Crossley, N., Bellotti, E., Edwards, G., Everett, M. G., Koskinen, J., & Tranmer, M. (2015). *Social Network Analysis for Ego-Nets: Social Network Analysis for Actor-Centred Networks*. SAGE.
- DellaPosta, D. (2020). Pluralistic collapse: The “oil spill” model of mass opinion polarization. *American Sociological Review*, 85(3), 507–536.
- DellaPosta, D., Shi, Y., & Macy, M. (2015). Why do liberals drink lattes? *American Journal of Sociology*, 120(5), 1473–1511.
- DiMaggio, P. (1987). Classification in art. *American Sociological Review*, 52(4), 440–455.
- Edelmann, A., & Vaisey, S. (2014). Cultural resources and cultural distinction in networks. *Poetics*, 46, 22–37.
- Erickson, B. H. (1996). Culture, class, and connections. *American Journal of Sociology*, 102(1), 217–251.
- Friemel, T. N. (2012). Network dynamics of television use in school classes. *Social Networks*, 34(3), 346–358.

- Granovetter, M. S. (1973). The strength of weak ties. *American Journal of Sociology*, 78(3), 1360–1380.
- Hachen, D., Wang, C., Sepulvado, B., & Lizardo, O. (2022). Generators or diffusers? Examining differences in the dynamic coupling of context and social ties across multiple types of foci. *Social Networks*. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.socnet.2022.02.004>.
- Hazır, I. K., & Warde, A. (2015). The cultural omnivore thesis: Methodological aspects of the debate. In L. Hanquinet & M. Savage (Eds), *Routledge International Handbook of the Sociology of Art and Culture* (pp. 97–151). Routledge.
- Joseph, K., & Carley, K. (2015). Culture, networks, Twitter and Foursquare: Testing a model of cultural conversion with social media data. *Proceedings of the International AAAI Conference on Web and Social Media*, 9(1), 626–629.
- Kane, D. (2004). A network approach to the puzzle of women's cultural participation. *Poetics*, 32(2), 105–127.
- Koppman, S. (2016). Different like me: Why cultural omnivores get creative jobs. *Administrative Science Quarterly*, 61(2), 291–331.
- Lamont, M., & Lareau, A. (1988). Cultural capital: Allusions, gaps and glissandos in recent theoretical developments. *Sociological Theory*, 6(2), 153–168.
- Lewis, K., & Kaufman, J. (2018). The conversion of cultural tastes into social network ties. *American Journal of Sociology*, 123(6), 1684–1742.
- Lewis, K., Gonzalez, M., & Kaufman, J. (2012). Social selection and peer influence in an online social network. *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences of the United States of America*, 109(1), 68–72.
- Lewis, K., Kaufman, J., Gonzalez, M., Wimmer, A., & Christakis, N. (2008). Tastes, ties, and time: A new social network dataset using Facebook.com. *Social Networks*, 30(4), 330–342.
- Lin, N. (1999). Building a network theory of social capital. *Connections*, 22(1), 28–51.
- Lin, N., Fu, Y.-C., & Hsung, R.-M. (2001). The position generator: Measurement techniques for investigations of social capital. In N. Lin, K. Cook, & R. S. Burt (Eds), *Social Capital* (pp. 57–81). Routledge.
- Lizardo, O. (2006a). The puzzle of women's "highbrow" culture consumption: Integrating gender and work into Bourdieu's class theory of taste. *Poetics*, 34(1), 1–23.
- Lizardo, O. (2006b). How cultural tastes shape personal networks. *American Sociological Review*, 71(5), 778–807.
- Lizardo, O. (2011). Cultural correlates of ego-network closure. *Sociological Perspectives*, 54(3), 479–487.
- Lizardo, O., & Skiles, S. (2015). Musical taste and patterns of symbolic exclusion in the United States 1993–2012: Generational dynamics of differentiation and continuity. *Poetics*, 53, 9–21.
- Lomi, A., & Stadtfeld, C. (2014). Social networks and social settings: Developing a coevolutionary view. *Kölner Zeitschrift Für Soziologie Und Sozialpsychologie*, 66(1), 395–415.
- Mark, N. (1998). Birds of a feather sing together. *Social Forces: A Scientific Medium of Social Study and Interpretation*, 77(2), 453–485.
- Mark, N. (2003). Culture and competition: Homophily and distancing explanations for cultural niches. *American Sociological Review*, 68(3), 319–345.
- Martin, J. L., & Yeung, K.-T. (2006). Persistence of close personal ties over a 12-year period. *Social Networks*, 28(4), 331–362.
- McPherson, J. M. (2004). A Blau space primer: Prolegomenon to an ecology of affiliation. *Industrial and Corporate Change*, 13(1), 263–280.
- McPherson, J. M., Smith-Lovin, L., & Cook, J. M. (2001). Birds of a feather: Homophily in social networks. *Annual Review of Sociology*, 27(1), 415–444.
- Meuleman, R. (2021). Cultural connections: The relation between cultural tastes and socioeconomic network resources. *Poetics*, 86, 101540.
- Mohr, J. W., Bail, C. A., Frye, M., Lena, J. C., Lizardo, O., McDonnell, T. E., Mische, A., Tavory, I., & Wherry, F. F. (2020). *Measuring Culture*. Columbia University Press.
- Peterson, R. A., & Kern, R. M. (1996). Changing highbrow taste: From snob to omnivore. *American Sociological Review*, 61(5), 900–907.
- Rimmer, M. (2010). Listening to the monkey: Class, youth and the formation of a musical habitus. *Ethnography*, 11(2), 255–283.

- Rivera, L. A. (2012). Hiring as cultural matching: The case of elite professional service firms. *American Sociological Review*, 77(6), 999–1022.
- Schultz, J., & Breiger, R. L. (2010). The strength of weak culture. *Poetics*, 38(6), 610–624.
- Shalizi, C. R., & Thomas, A. C. (2011). Homophily and contagion are generically confounded in observational social network studies. *Sociological Methods & Research*, 40(2), 211–239.
- Vaisey, S., & Lizardo, O. (2010). Can cultural worldviews influence network composition? *Social Forces*, 88(4), 1595–1618.
- Vlegels, J. (2014). *Network Dynamics in the Cultural System*. Ghent University. <https://biblio.ugent.be/publication/5785476/file/5785490>.
- Warde, A., & Tambubolon, G. (2002). Social capital, networks and leisure consumption. *The Sociological Review*, 50(2), 155–180.